

Tensor Bible

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Introduction

before, big picture, what is a tensor, algebraic object describing multilinear relationship between algebraic objects [1]

Chapter 1

Vector Analysis

bla bla bla operations past numbers which are addition-like or multiplication like

1.1 Group-Like Structures

Groups generalize binary operations with addition- or multiplication-like properties.

Definition 1.1 (Monoid) *A monoid $\{M, \cdot\}$ is a set M with a binary operation $\cdot : G \times G \rightarrow G$ which satisfies the following properties.*

1. *Associativity*

$$\forall m, n, p \in M : m \cdot (n \cdot p) = (m \cdot n) \cdot p \quad (1.1)$$

2. *Identity element*

$$\exists i \in M : \forall m \in M : i \cdot m = m \cdot i = m \quad (1.2)$$

Definition 1.2 (Group) *A group $\{G, \cdot\}$ is a monoid which also has inverse elements.*

$$\forall a \in G : \exists b \in A : a \cdot b = i \quad (1.3)$$

Definition 1.3 (Abelian Group) *An Abelian group $\{A, \cdot\}$ is a group which also has commutativity*

$$\forall a, b \in A : a \cdot b = b \cdot a \quad (1.4)$$

In the same spirit of generalizing addition and multiplication, the following two notation conventions are often used for such operations.

- Additive: An addition-like operation, almost always an Abelian group, with $+$ for the operation, 0 for the identity, and $-a$ for any inverses. For a group, subtraction can be defined.

$$a - b := a + (-b) \quad (1.5)$$

- Multiplicative: A multiplication-like operation, less often an Abelian group, with $\times$, $\cdot$, or $*$ for the operation, 1 for the identity, and a^{-1} for any inverses. For a group, division can be defined.

$$a/b := a \cdot b^{-1} \quad (1.6)$$

1.1.1 Group Actions

Actions generalize operations between arbitrary sets and monoids. For example, displacements are an action on positions. Compositions of displacements form an additive Abelian group using “tip to tail” addition. If one composition of displacements equals another composition, then they should get you to the same final destination.

Definition 1.4 (Left Action) *A left action $\circ : M \times X \rightarrow X$ is a binary operation between a monoid $\{M, \cdot\}$ with identity i and a set X which satisfies the following properties.*

1. Left identity

$$\forall x \in X : i \circ x = x \quad (1.7)$$

2. Left compatibility

$$\forall m, n \in M, x \in X : m \circ (n \circ x) = (m \cdot n) \circ x \quad (1.8)$$

Definition 1.5 (Right Action) *A right action $\circ : X \times M \rightarrow X$ is a binary operation between a set X and a monoid $\{M, \cdot\}$ with identity i which satisfies the following properties.*

1. Right identity

$$\forall x \in X : x \circ i = x \quad (1.9)$$

2. Right compatibility

$$\forall x \in X, m, n \in G : (x \circ m) \circ n = x \circ (m \cdot n) \quad (1.10)$$

1.2 Ring-Like Structures

Rings generalize cases where there is both an addition- and multiplication-like operation. Multiplication may or may not be invertible, but if it is, cannot include the additive identity 0. See Proof ??.

Definition 1.6 (Ring) *A ring $\{R, +, \cdot\}$ is a set R with an additive Abelian group $\{R, +\}$ and a multiplicative monoid $\{R, \cdot\}$ which satisfy the following properties.*

1. Left distributivity

$$\forall r, s, t \in R : r \cdot (s + t) = r \cdot s + r \cdot t \quad (1.11)$$

2. Right distributivity

$$\forall r, s, t \in R : (r + s) \cdot t = r \cdot t + s \cdot t \quad (1.12)$$

Definition 1.7 (Commutative Ring) *A commutative ring $\{R, +, \cdot\}$ is a ring where $\{R, \cdot\}$ is commutative.*

Definition 1.8 (Field) *A field $\{\mathbb{F}, +, \cdot\}$ is a ring where $\{\mathbb{F} \setminus 0, \cdot\}$ is a multiplicative group.*

1.3 Module-Like Structures

Modules generalize vector spaces.

Definition 1.9 (Left Module) *A left module A over a ring R is a system of sets and operations $\{A, R, \oplus, +, \cdot, *, \cdot\}$ which satisfy the following properties.*

1. $\{A, \oplus\}$ is an additive Abelian group.

2. $\{R, +, \cdot\}$ is a ring.

3. Scalar multiplication $*$: $R \times A \rightarrow A$ is a left action of the multiplicative monoid $\{R, \cdot\}$ of the ring on A which satisfies the following properties.

(a) *Distributivity over A 's addition*

$$\forall r \in R, a, b \in A : r * (a \oplus b) = r * a \oplus r * b \quad (1.13)$$

(b) *Distributivity over R 's addition into A 's addition*

$$\forall r, s \in R, a \in A : (r + s) * a = r * a \oplus s * a \quad (1.14)$$

Definition 1.10 (Left Vector Space) *A left vector space V over a field $\mathbb{F}$ is a left module with sets and operations $\{V, \mathbb{F}, \oplus, +, \cdot, *\}$ where the ring is a field. Scalar multiplication is then a left action of the multiplicative group $\{\mathbb{F} \setminus 0, \cdot\}$.*

Further, scalar multiplication can be used to relate the inverse and identity elements of the field and vector space.

$$\forall \mathbf{v} \in V : 0 * \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{0} \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (1.15)$$

$$\forall \mathbf{v} \in V : (-1) * \mathbf{v} = -\mathbf{v} \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (1.16)$$

In practice, the notation used is looser. Vector and scalar addition share the same symbol. Field and scalar multiplication symbols are usually dropped. The operations can be inferred from context.

1.4 Derived Vector Spaces

The set of functions V^X mapping from an arbitrary set X to a vector space V over $\mathbb{F}$ can be turned into a vector space over $\mathbb{F}$ with the following operations.

$$(f + g)(x) = f(x) + g(x) \quad (1.17)$$

$$(\alpha * f) = \alpha * f(x) \quad (1.18)$$

Definition 1.11 (Linear Subspace) *A linear subspace $U \subset V$ of a vector space V over $\mathbb{F}$ is a subset which is also a vector space using V 's operations. This means that it is closed with respect to vector addition and scalar multiplication.*

Definition 1.12 (Conjugate Space) *The conjugate space $\bar{V}$ of a vector space V over a field $\mathbb{F}$ is the same vector space, except that the scalar multiplication used is the complex conjugate of the one used for V .*

$$\alpha \bar{*} \mathbf{v} = \bar{\alpha} * \mathbf{v} \quad (1.19)$$

The conjugate space is sometimes used to manage linearity and anti-linearity of mathematical constructions. It should be used very carefully.

Affine spaces generalize spaces with no inherent reference point. For example consider Euclidean space or time. There is no inherent coordinate system or time axis to the universe. Assigning a coordinate origin, calendar system, or time zone is arbitrary. However, once this is done, the affine space can be represented with a vector space.

Definition 1.13 (Affine Space) *An affine space $\{X, V, +, \oplus\}$ is a set X , vector space V over a field $\mathbb{F}$, and a right action $\oplus : X \times V \rightarrow X$ of the additive group $\{V, +\}$ which satisfies the following properties.*

1. *The action is*

(a) *Free*

$$\forall \mathbf{v} \in V : x \oplus \mathbf{v} = x \implies \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{0} \quad (1.20)$$

(b) *Transitive*

$$\forall x, y \in X : \exists \mathbf{v} \in V : x \oplus \mathbf{v} = y \quad (1.21)$$

Elements in X are called points and vectors in V are called translations or free vectors. The definition above also implies the following properties.

$$\begin{aligned} \forall x, y \in X : \exists! \mathbf{v} \in V : x \oplus \mathbf{v} = y & \quad \text{Bijection for fixed } x. \text{ Proof ?? (1.22)} \\ \forall \mathbf{v} \in V, y \in X : \exists! x \in X : x \oplus \mathbf{v} = y & \quad \text{Bijection for fixed } \mathbf{v}. \text{ Proof ?? (1.23)} \end{aligned}$$

Since these operations are invertible, both point-vector $\ominus : X \times V \rightarrow X$ and point-point $\dot{-} : X \times X \rightarrow V$ subtraction operations are well-defined (Proof ??).

$$a \oplus (b \dot{-} a) = b \quad (1.24)$$

This operation also satisfies the following properties, called Weyl's axioms.

$$\forall x \in X, \mathbf{v} \in V : \exists! y \in X : y \dot{-} x = \mathbf{v} \quad \text{Proof ?? (1.25)}$$

$$\forall x, y, z \in X : (c \dot{-} b) + (b \dot{-} a) = c \dot{-} a \quad \text{Proof ?? (1.26)}$$

Furthermore, the parallelogram property is satisfied.

$$\forall w, x, y, z \in X : b \dot{-} a = d \dot{-} c \iff c \dot{-} a = d \dot{-} b \quad (1.27)$$

As with vector spaces, distinguishing all of these operations with special symbols is done for clarity. In practice, simple addition and subtraction are used, and such notation will be used moving forwards.

Finally, any vector space is an affine space over itself (Proof ??). This means that any element of V can be considered as a point or a vector. Importantly, this formalizes that notion of a reference point being arbitrary. Given a reference point $o \in A$, an isomorphism $\iota_o : X \leftrightarrow V$ can be constructed between A and V .

$$\iota_o(x) = x \ominus o \quad (1.28)$$

Definition 1.14 (Affine Subspace) An affine subspace $W \subseteq X$ of an affine space $\{X, V, +, \oplus\}$ is a set W for which there exists some $w \in W$ such that generated vectors $\vec{W} = \{x \ominus w : x \in W\}$ is a linear subspace of V .

It follows that the choice of w is arbitrary, and all subspaces can be generated from linear subspaces $U \subseteq V$ as follows.

$$x + U := \{x + \mathbf{u} : \mathbf{u} \in U\} \quad (1.29)$$

The linear subspace U can be considered the affine subspace's direction, and two subspaces that share the same or subsidiary directions $T \subseteq U$ are considered parallel. The above properties imply Playfair's axiom: for any point $x \in X$ and direction $U \subseteq V$ there is a unique affine subspace of direction U (Proof ??).

Definition 1.15 (Affine Map) An affine map $f : A \rightarrow B$ between two affine spaces A and B is one which satisfies the following property.

$$\forall a, b, c, d \in A : a \dot{-} b = c \dot{-} d \implies f(a) \dot{-} f(b) = f(c) \dot{-} f(d) \quad (1.30)$$

This implies that the following map between the associated vector spaces $\vec{f} : \vec{A} \rightarrow \vec{B}$ is well-defined linear map (Proof ??).

$$\vec{f}(b \dot{-} a) = f(b) \dot{-} f(a) \quad (1.31)$$

The flip side of this is that one can start with arbitrary points $a \in A$ and $b \in B$ and a linear map $\vec{f}$ and generate f .

$$f(x) = b \oplus \vec{f}(x \dot{-} a) \quad (1.32)$$

1.5 Basis

Definition 1.16 (Linear Combination) A linear combination of vectors $\{\mathbf{v}_j\}_{j=1}^k$ is a finite sum of scalar multiples of themselves.

$$\sum_{j=1}^k \alpha_j \mathbf{v}_j \quad (1.33)$$

Definition 1.17 (Linear Dependence) A vector $\mathbf{v}$ is linearly dependent on a set of vectors $\{\mathbf{v}_j\}_{j=1}^k$ if there is a linear combination of the set which equals $\mathbf{v}$.

$$\exists \{\alpha_j\}_{j=1}^k \subseteq \mathbb{F} : \mathbf{v} = \sum_{j=1}^k \alpha_j \mathbf{v}_j \quad (1.34)$$

Definition 1.18 (Linear Independence) A set of vectors $\{\mathbf{v}_j\}_{j=1}^k$ is linearly independent if none of the vectors are linearly dependent on the others. Otherwise, the set is linearly dependent. An infinite set is linearly independent if every finite subset of it is linearly independent.

Definition 1.19 (Span) A subset B spans a vector space V if every vector in V is linearly dependent on a finite subset of B .

Definition 1.20 (Hamel Basis) A Hamel basis is a maximal linearly independent subset of a vector space. This means that it is not a proper subset of another linearly independent subset.

If it exists, a Hamel basis spans its vector space and generates unique finite linear combinations for every vector in the space.

Definition 1.21 (Dimension) The dimension of a vector space is the cardinality of its basis.

$$\dim V = \#B \quad (1.35)$$

1.6 Topological Functions

The following functions are common, but not exhaustive, ways to create topologies on sets and vector spaces. They are very useful in continuum mechanics because they standardize distances, magnitudes, and angles outside of geometry.

Definition 1.22 (Metric) A metric $d : X \times X \rightarrow [0, \infty)$ is a function that generalizes distance between elements of the set X by satisfying the following properties.

1. Zero property

$$\forall x, y \in X : d(x, y) = 0 \iff x = y \quad (1.36)$$

2. Symmetry

$$\forall x, y \in X : d(x, y) = d(y, x) \quad (1.37)$$

3. Triangle inequality

$$\forall x, y, z \in X : d(x, y) \leq d(x, z) + d(y, z) \quad (1.38)$$

A set with an associated metric is called a metric space.

Definition 1.23 (Norm) A norm $\|\cdot\| : V \rightarrow [0, \infty)$ is a function that generalizes magnitude of vectors in a vector space X over a real or complex field $\mathbb{F} \subseteq \mathbb{C}$ by satisfying the following properties.

1. Positive-definiteness

$$\forall \mathbf{v} \in V : \|\mathbf{v}\| = 0 \iff \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{0} \quad (1.39)$$

2. *Absolute homogeneity, i.e. scaling property*

$$\forall \alpha \in \mathbb{F}, \mathbf{v} \in V : \|\alpha \mathbf{v}\| = |\alpha| \|\mathbf{v}\| \quad (1.40)$$

3. *Triangle inequality*

$$\forall \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \in V : \|\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}\| \leq \|\mathbf{u}\| + \|\mathbf{v}\| \quad (1.41)$$

A vector space with a norm is called a normed linear space. It is also a metric space using the induced metric.

$$d(\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v}) = \|\mathbf{u} - \mathbf{v}\| \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (1.42)$$

All norms are equivalent in finite-dimensional spaces. See Proof ??.

Definition 1.24 *An inner product $(\cdot, \cdot) : V \times V \rightarrow \mathbb{F}$ is a function that generalizes the similarity of vectors in a vector space X over a real or complex field $\mathbb{F} \subseteq \mathbb{C}$ by satisfying the following properties.*

1. *Positive-definiteness*

$$\forall \mathbf{x} \in X : (\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x}) = 0 \iff \mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0} \quad (1.43)$$

2. *Linearity in the first argument*

$$\forall \alpha_1, \alpha_2 \in \mathbb{F}, \mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2, \mathbf{y} \in X : (\alpha_1 \mathbf{x}_1 + \alpha_2 \mathbf{x}_2, \mathbf{y}) = \alpha_1 (\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{y}) + \alpha_2 (\mathbf{x}_2, \mathbf{y}) \quad (1.44)$$

3. *Conjugate symmetry*

$$\forall \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y} \in X : (\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) = \overline{(\mathbf{y}, \mathbf{x})} \quad (1.45)$$

These conditions imply anti-linearity in the second argument, or linearity for functions over a real field.

$$\forall \beta_1, \beta_2 \in \mathbb{F}, \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}_1, \mathbf{y}_2 \in X : (\mathbf{x}, \beta_1 \mathbf{y}_1 + \beta_2 \mathbf{y}_2) = \overline{\beta_1} (\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}_1) + \overline{\beta_2} (\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}_2) \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (1.46)$$

For any inner product, the Cauchy-Schwarz inequality applies.

$$(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}) \leq \sqrt{(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x})(\mathbf{y}, \mathbf{y})} \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (1.47)$$

A vector space with an inner product is called an inner product space. It is also a normed linear space and a metric space using the induced norm.

$$\|\mathbf{x}\| = \sqrt{(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{x})} \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (1.48)$$

An inner product also allows for an abstract notion of angle, inspired by geometry.

$$\cos(\theta) = \frac{(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y})}{\|\mathbf{x}\| \|\mathbf{y}\|} \quad (1.49)$$

1.7 Dual Spaces and Functionals

Definition 1.25 (Algebraic Dual Space) *The algebraic dual V^* of a vector space V over a field $\mathbb{F}$ is the set of all linear functionals from V to $\mathbb{F}$.*

$$V^* = L(V, \mathbb{F}) \subseteq \mathbb{F}^V \quad (1.50)$$

This is also a vector space over $\mathbb{F}$ (Proof ??). However, functionals are usually not bolded, to emphasize that they are functions with scalar outputs.

Definition 1.26 (Dual Set) *The dual set $\{\mathbf{e}^{i*}\}_{i \in I}$ of a vector space V over $\mathbb{F}$, with respect to a certain basis $\{\mathbf{e}_i\}_{i \in I}$, is a set of linear functionals generated by the following rule.*

$$\mathbf{e}^{i*}(\mathbf{e}_j) = \delta_{ij}$$

This set is linearly independent. It defines an injection from V into V^* . If the space is finite-dimensional, then the dual set is a basis for the algebraic dual space.

Definition 1.27 (Duality Pairing) *The duality pairing between a vector space V over $\mathbb{F}$ and its algebraic dual V^* is a bilinear functional onto the field which evaluates the functional at that vector.*

$$\langle f, \mathbf{x} \rangle_{X^*, X} = \langle \mathbf{x}, f \rangle_{X, X^*} = f(\mathbf{x}) \quad (1.51)$$

Definition 1.28 (Topological Dual Space) *The topological dual V' of a topological vector space V over $\mathbb{F}$ is the set of all continuous linear functionals from V to $\mathbb{F}$.*

$$V' = B(V, \mathbb{F}) \subseteq V^* \quad (1.52)$$

This is also a vector space over $\mathbb{F}$ (Proof ??). It can be proven that $V^* = V'$ if and only if V is finite-dimensional.

1.8 Riesz Representation and Hilbert Space Bases

Theorem 1.29 (Riesz Representation Theorem) *Given a Hilbert space H over $\mathbb{F}$, every continuous linear functional can be uniquely represented by an inner product.*

$$\forall f \in H' : \exists! \mathbf{u} \in H : \forall \mathbf{v} \in V : f(\mathbf{v}) = (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{u})_H \quad (1.53)$$

Definition 1.30 (Riesz Map) *The Riesz map $R : H \leftrightarrow H'$ is an antilinear isometric isomorphism between a Hilbert space H and its topological dual.*

$$R\mathbf{u} = (\cdot, \mathbf{u})_H \quad (1.54)$$

Note that $\mathbf{u}$ is intentionally placed in the second argument, to make $R\mathbf{u}$ linear. As a result, R itself is antilinear. This nuance is sometimes lost for real vector spaces. In practice, the notation changes. In linear algebra, $R\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{u}^*$. In quantum mechanics, $R|u\rangle = \langle u|$.

A nice visual correspondence can be established between the evaluation map and inner product.

$$\langle \mathbf{v}, R\mathbf{u} \rangle_{H, H'} = (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{u})_H \quad (1.55)$$

Especially for real-valued Hilbert spaces, where complex conjugation can be ignored, $R\mathbf{u}$ is not distinguished from $\mathbf{u}$ and notation blurs. What adds to the confusion is that angle brackets are also used for the inner product. Consider this example for $L^2(\Omega)$ over $\mathbb{R}$.

$$\langle f, g \rangle_{(L^2(\Omega))', L^2(\Omega)} = \langle g, f \rangle_{L^2(\Omega), (L^2(\Omega))'} = (f, g)_{L^2(\Omega)} = (g, f)_{L^2(\Omega)} = \int_{\Omega} f(x)g(x) \, dx$$

Some might just write (f, g) and let the reader infer the rest.

Definition 1.31 (Cobasis) *A cobasis $\{\mathbf{e}^i\}_{i \in I}$ of a given basis $\{\mathbf{e}_i\}_{i \in I}$ of an inner product space H is a basis which satisfies the following property.*

$$(\mathbf{e}^i, \mathbf{e}_j)_H = (\mathbf{e}_j, \mathbf{e}^i)_H = \delta_{ij} \quad (1.56)$$

The dual basis for H' corresponds directly to the cobasis for H (Proof ??).

$$(\mathbf{e}^i)^* = \mathbf{e}^{i*} \quad (1.57)$$

Now any vector has four different representations.

$$\mathbf{v} = \sum_{i=1}^N v^i \mathbf{e}_i = \sum_{i=1}^N v_i \mathbf{e}^i \quad (1.58)$$

$$\mathbf{v}^* = f = \sum_{i=1}^N f^i \mathbf{e}_i^* = \sum_{i=1}^N f_i \mathbf{e}^{i*} \quad (1.59)$$

Starting from the basis representation of a vector, the following relationships apply between the components.

$$v_i = \sum_{j=1}^N v^j (\mathbf{e}_j, \mathbf{e}_i)_H \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (1.60)$$

$$f^i = \overline{v^i} \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (1.61)$$

$$f_i = \sum_{j=1}^N \overline{v_j (\mathbf{e}_j, \mathbf{e}_i)_H} = \overline{v_i} \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (1.62)$$

Definition 1.32 (Orthonormal Basis) *An orthonormal basis $\{\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i\}_{i \in I}$ is a basis which is its own cobasis.*

When using an orthonormal basis, the superscript-subscript distinction is often dropped.

$$\mathbf{v} = \sum_{i=1}^N v_i \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \quad (1.63)$$

Chapter 2

Tensor Analysis

explain core idea of multilinear maps
outline the chapter

2.1 Linear Operators

explain why we start here

Definition 2.1 (Linear Transformation) *A linear transformation $A : V \rightarrow W$ is a map between two vector spaces V, W over $\mathbb{F}$ which satisfies the following properties.*

1. *Additive*

$$\forall \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \in V : A(\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}) = A(\mathbf{u}) + A(\mathbf{v}) \quad (2.1)$$

2. *Homogeneous*

$$\forall \alpha \in \mathbb{F}, \mathbf{v} \in V : A(\alpha \mathbf{v}) = \alpha A(\mathbf{v}) \quad (2.2)$$

In the complex case, if $A(\alpha \mathbf{v}) = \bar{\alpha} A(\mathbf{v})$, then A is an anti-linear transformation. By convention, a linear operator's argument parentheses may be dropped: $A\mathbf{x} = A(\mathbf{x})$.

The set of linear operators between vector spaces V and W is a vector space $L(V, W)$ over the same field (Proof ??). Given a finite-dimensional domain and range, a linear transformation can be represented with components with respect to a basis, similar to a vector or covector. This means that once bases have been chosen, linear transformations can be computed purely with components.

something something linear algebra
maybe move this to an appendix?

- V : vector space over $\mathbb{F}$, $\dim V = n$, with some basis $\{\mathbf{e}_1, \dots, \mathbf{e}_n\}$
- W : vector space over $\mathbb{F}$, $\dim W = m$, with some basis $\{\mathbf{f}_1, \dots, \mathbf{f}_m\}$
- $A : V \rightarrow W$: linear transformation

Pick any vector $\mathbf{v} \in V$, and let $\mathbf{w} = A(\mathbf{v})$.

$$\begin{aligned}
w^i &= \mathbf{f}^{i*}(\mathbf{w}) \\
&= \mathbf{f}^{i*}(A(\mathbf{v})) \\
&= \mathbf{f}^{i*}\left(A\left(\sum_{j=1}^n v^j \mathbf{e}_j\right)\right) \\
&= \sum_{j=1}^n \mathbf{f}^{i*}(A(\mathbf{e}_j)) v^j \\
&= \sum_{j=1}^n A_{ij} v^j \\
A_{ij} &= \mathbf{f}^{i*}(A(\mathbf{e}_j))
\end{aligned}$$

Now, it's tempting to conclude $A = \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n A_{ij} \mathbf{f}_i \mathbf{e}_j^*$, and that linear operators from V to W have some basis vectors $\mathbf{f}_i \mathbf{e}_j^*$, but technically that's not a well-defined object. This motivates dyads, but for now it is more proper to define basis operators E_{ij} where $\mathbf{f}^{k*} E_{ij} \mathbf{e}_\ell = \delta_{ki} \delta_{j\ell}$.

Definition 2.2 (Adjoint) *The adjoint $A^* : Y^* \rightarrow X^*$ of a linear operator $A : X \rightarrow Y$ is a linear map with the following definition.*

$$A^* f = f \circ A \quad (2.3)$$

An equivalent definition uses the evaluation map.

$$\langle A^* f, x \rangle_{X^*, X} = \langle f, Ax \rangle_{Y^*, Y} \quad (2.4)$$

Definition 2.3 (Hermitian Adjoint) *The Hermitian adjoint $A^\dagger : Y \rightarrow X$ of a linear operator $A : X \rightarrow Y$ is a linear map with the following definition.*

$$A^\dagger = R_X^{-1} \circ A^* \circ R_Y \quad (2.5)$$

An equivalent definition uses the inner product.

$$(A^\dagger \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v})_X = (\mathbf{u}, A\mathbf{v})_Y \quad (2.6)$$

Similar to how vectors are not necessarily distinguished from their dual mapping, the Hermitian adjoint is not necessarily distinguished from the adjoint. Context is key. Additional notations include $A^\#$, A' , and A^T .

The matrix transpose is a special case of the adjoint. For complex-valued finite-dimensional linear algebra, the Hermitian adjoint is the conjugate transpose.

$$(A^\dagger)_{ij} = \overline{A_{ij}} \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (2.7)$$

2.2 Tensor Product Spaces

The idea of a tensor product is to create a compound object from two vector spaces that is itself bilinear in its componets. The construction as a quotient space is roundabout, but is construed specifically to give that property.

draw connection between bilinearity and linear maps upfront

Definition 2.4 (Cartesian Product Space) *The Cartesian product space $V \times W$ of vector spaces V and W over the same field $\mathbb{F}$ is itself a vector space over $\mathbb{F}$, formed with all possible pairs from V and W as its basis.*

$$V \times W = \text{span}\{(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) : \mathbf{v} \in V, \mathbf{w} \in W\} \quad (2.8)$$

This vector space is not very useful because every unique combination of $(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w})$ is an independent basis vector. Any linear combinations of pairs are irreducible, as seen below.

$$\begin{aligned}(\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{w}) + (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) &\neq (\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) \\ \alpha(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) &\neq (\alpha\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) \neq (\mathbf{v}, \alpha\mathbf{w})\end{aligned}$$

Definition 2.5 (Tensor Product Space) *The tensor product space $V \otimes W$ of vector spaces V and W over the same field $\mathbb{F}$ is the quotient space $(V \times W)/R$, where $R \subset V \times W$ is a linear subspace generated from the span of the following kinds of elements, generated for all $\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \in V, \mathbf{w}, \mathbf{x} \in W, \alpha \in \mathbb{F}$.*

- $(\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) - (\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{w}) - (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w})$
- $(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w} + \mathbf{x}) - (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) - (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{x})$
- $(\alpha\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) - \alpha(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w})$
- $(\mathbf{v}, \alpha\mathbf{w}) - \alpha(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w})$

The definition is arcane, so it helps to walk through the meaning of a quotient space. First, R generates an equivalence relation that gives the exact bilinearity properties desired.

$$\forall \mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b} \in V \times W : \mathbf{a} \sim \mathbf{b} \iff \mathbf{a} - \mathbf{b} \in R \quad (2.9)$$

- $(\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) \sim (\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{w}) + (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w})$
- $(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w} + \mathbf{x}) \sim (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) + (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{x})$
- $(\alpha\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) \sim \alpha(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w})$
- $(\mathbf{v}, \alpha\mathbf{w}) \sim \alpha(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w})$

Now, dyads can be defined as a special notation for the equivalence classes associated with the equivalence relation. These sets themselves are elements of $V \otimes W = (V \times W)/R$. In practice, they are not often thought of as sets containing elements.

$$\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w} := [(\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w})]_R = \{(\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{x}) \in V \times W : (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w}) - (\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{x}) \in R\} \quad (2.10)$$

With the additional definitions that $[\mathbf{a}]_R + [\mathbf{b}]_R = [\mathbf{a} + \mathbf{b}]_R$ and $\alpha[\mathbf{a}]_R = [\alpha\mathbf{a}]_R$, $V \otimes W$ can be proven as a vector space (Proof ??) over the same field. Finally, the bilinearity properties follow.

$$(\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}) \otimes \mathbf{w} = \mathbf{u} \otimes \mathbf{w} + \mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w} \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.11)}$$

$$\mathbf{v} \otimes (\mathbf{w} + \mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w} + \mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{x} \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.12)}$$

$$(\alpha\mathbf{v}) \otimes \mathbf{w} = \alpha(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w}) \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.13)}$$

$$\mathbf{v} \otimes (\alpha\mathbf{w}) = \alpha(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w}) \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.14)}$$

For bases $\{\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i\}_{i \in I}$ and $\{\hat{\mathbf{g}}_j\}_{j \in J}$, $\{\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{g}}_j\}_{i \in I, j \in J}$ forms a basis for $V \otimes W$ (Proof ??).

Like the Cartesian product, the tensor product is associative.

$$(V \otimes W) \otimes X \cong V \otimes (W \otimes X) \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.15)}$$

The dual of a tensor product space is generally injected into by the tensor product of dual spaces. If one of the spaces is finite-dimensional, this becomes an isomorphism. A tensor product space is generally injects into the dual of the tensor product of duals. If both spaces are finite dimensional, this becomes an isomorphism. The injections use the following definitions.

fix this

$$\begin{aligned} V^* \otimes W^* &\hookrightarrow (V \otimes W)^* \\ V^* \otimes W &\hookrightarrow (V \otimes W^*)^* \\ V \otimes W^* &\hookrightarrow (V^* \otimes W)^* \\ V \otimes W &\hookrightarrow (V^* \otimes W^*)^* \end{aligned}$$

$$(f \otimes g)(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w}) = \langle f, \mathbf{v} \rangle_{V^*, V} \langle g, \mathbf{w} \rangle_{W^*, W} \quad (2.16)$$

$$(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w})(f \otimes g) = \langle \mathbf{v}, f \rangle_{V, V^*} \langle \mathbf{w}, g \rangle_{W, W^*} \quad (2.17)$$

A tensor product of Hilbert spaces is also a Hilbert space with the following inner product definition (Proof).

$$(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w}, \mathbf{u} \otimes \mathbf{x})_{H_1 \otimes H_2} = (\mathbf{v}, \mathbf{u})_{H_1} (\mathbf{w}, \mathbf{x})_{H_2}$$

2.3 Tensors as Linear and Bilinear Maps

Tensor products can be made isomorphic to linear maps by carefully defining their actions. Often, the nuance is glazed over. For example, textbooks often introduce dyads as a mysterious bilinear object with the following property.

$$(\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{b})\mathbf{c} = (\mathbf{b} \cdot \mathbf{c})\mathbf{a}$$

This is technically valid for a real-valued Hilbert space. The problem is that this does not generalize well to complex and non-Hilbert spaces. However, it is possible to contrive an alternative using duals, which every vector space has. By starting more generally, the above definition eventually gets recovered as a special case.

To define new actions between vector spaces and tensor products, the following conventions are used. Again, the duality pairing, not an inner product, is used. Its bilinearity is useful. The vector is one of the arguments, guaranteeing that the map linear. The second argument is a vector from the adjacent tensor product slot. This ensures consistency with the bilinearity of the tensor product.

These conventions place restrictions on what actions are compatible. Actions can be defined for $V \otimes W$ on W^* or V on $V^* \otimes W$, but generally not $V \otimes W$ on W . The vector space is always paired with either its dual or predual. With this in mind, it is more concise to write definitions using a dual pair of sets (V_1, V_2) . This means that the statement applies both when $V_2 = V_1^*$ and $V_1 = V_2^*$.

Definition 2.6 (Action of a Tensor Product) *A tensor product space $V \otimes W_1$ acts on W_2 , where (W_1, W_2) is a dual pair, with the following definition.*

$$(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w}_1)\mathbf{w}_2 = \langle \mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2 \rangle_{W_1, W_2} \mathbf{v} \quad (2.18)$$

This definition is consistent with the bilinearity of the tensor product (Proof ??). In the finite-dimensional case, this defines isomorphisms for $V \otimes W \cong L(W^*, V)$ (Proof) and $V \otimes W^* \cong L(W, V)$ (Proof).

Now it is more clear how to properly set up tensor actions for complex Hilbert spaces. For example, $H_1 \otimes H_2$ does not have a well-defined action on H_2 , but $H_1 \otimes H_2'$ does. It is true that $H_2' \cong H_2$ through the Riesz map, $\mathbf{w} \mapsto \mathbf{w}^*$. The catch is that the isomorphism is antilinear, $(\alpha \mathbf{w})^* = \bar{\alpha} \mathbf{w}^*$.

$$(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w})\mathbf{x}^* = (\mathbf{w}, \mathbf{x})_{H_2} \mathbf{v} \quad \text{Proof ??}$$

$$(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w}^*)\mathbf{x} = (\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{w})_{H_2} \mathbf{v} \quad \text{Proof ??}$$

Notice that, although the results are antilinear the second inner product slot, the Riesz map is an accounting fix that ensures both the bilinearity of the tensor product, and the linearity of the action.

Carefully choosing the appropriate action for each case, the algebraic and Hermitian adjoints are identified as follows.

$$(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w})^* = \mathbf{w} \otimes \mathbf{v} \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.19)}$$

$$(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w})^\dagger = \mathbf{w} \otimes \mathbf{v} \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.20)}$$

$$(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w}^*)^\dagger = \mathbf{w} \otimes \mathbf{v}^* \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.21)}$$

$$(\mathbf{v}^* \otimes \mathbf{w})^\dagger = \mathbf{w}^* \otimes \mathbf{v} \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.22)}$$

$$(\mathbf{v}^* \otimes \mathbf{w}^*)^\dagger = \mathbf{w}^* \otimes \mathbf{v}^* \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.23)}$$

Meanwhile, tensor products correspond to bilinear maps with the following construction.

$$(\mathbf{v}_1 \otimes \mathbf{w}_1)(\mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{w}_2) = \langle \mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2 \rangle_{V_1, V_2} \langle \mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2 \rangle_{W_1, W_2} \quad (2.24)$$

In the finite-dimensional case, this defines an isomorphism $V_1 \otimes W_1 \cong L(V_2, W_2)$ (Proof).

2.4 Additional Tensor Actions

Now, similar actions can be constructed from the left upon a tensor product, for duals and preduals. One option is to provide a direct definition. However, here we start with a consistency constraint, ensuring linearity and a sort of associativity, and deduce the appropriate definition.

Definition 2.7 (Action on a Tensor Product) *A space V_2 acts from the left on a tensor product $V_1 \otimes W_1$, where (V_1, V_2) and (W_1, W_2) are dual pairs, with the following constraint.*

$$\forall \mathbf{w}_2 \in W_2 : (\mathbf{v}_2 \cdot (\mathbf{v}_1 \otimes \mathbf{w}_1))(\mathbf{w}_2) = \langle \mathbf{v}_2, (\mathbf{v}_1 \otimes \mathbf{w}_1) \mathbf{w}_2 \rangle_{V_2, V_1} \quad (2.25)$$

The following definition results.

$$\mathbf{v}_2 \cdot (\mathbf{v}_1 \otimes \mathbf{w}_1) = \langle \mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{v}_1 \rangle_{V_2, V_1} \mathbf{w}_1 \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.26)}$$

This resultant action is consistent with the bilinearity of the tensor product (Proof ??). In the finite-dimensional case, this defines isomorphisms for $V \otimes W \cong L(V^*, W)$ (Proof) and $V^* \otimes W^* \cong L(V, W)$ (Proof).

Another nice consequence of this construction is that left and right actions of the tensor product are associative (Proof). It also is consistent with the isomorphism to bilinear maps.

$$\mathbf{v}_2 \cdot (\mathbf{v}_1 \otimes \mathbf{w}_1) \mathbf{w}_2 = (\mathbf{v}_1 \otimes \mathbf{w}_1)(\mathbf{v}_2, \mathbf{w}_2) \quad \text{Proof ?? (2.27)}$$

If a tensor product space is also a vector space, how might a tensor product be acted on? The answer comes from recognizing the dual injections mentioned earlier. The general rule, for dual pairs (V_1, V_2) and (W_1, W_2) , is that $V_1 \otimes W_1 \hookrightarrow (V_2 \otimes W_2)^*$ with the following pairing.

$$\langle \mathbf{v}_1 \otimes \mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{v}_2 \otimes \mathbf{w}_2 \rangle_{(V_2 \otimes W_2)^*, V_2 \otimes W_2} = \langle \mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2 \rangle_{V_1, V_2} \langle \mathbf{w}_1, \mathbf{w}_2 \rangle_{W_1, W_2} \quad (2.28)$$

Thus the following rules for actions on dual pairs $(V_{i,1}, V_{i,2})$ and $(W_{i,1}, W_{i,2})$ follow.

$$(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{w}_{1,1} \otimes \cdots \otimes \mathbf{w}_{n,1})(\mathbf{w}_{1,1} \otimes \cdots \otimes \mathbf{w}_{n,1}) = \langle \mathbf{w}_{1,1}, \mathbf{w}_{1,2} \rangle_{W_{1,1}, W_{1,2}} \cdots \langle \mathbf{w}_{n,1}, \mathbf{w}_{n,2} \rangle_{W_{n,1}, W_{n,2}} \mathbf{v} \quad (2.29)$$

$$(\mathbf{v}_{1,1} \otimes \cdots \otimes \mathbf{v}_{n,1}) \cdot (\mathbf{v}_{1,2} \otimes \cdots \otimes \mathbf{v}_{n,2} \otimes \mathbf{w}) = \mathbf{v}_{1,1}, \mathbf{v}_{1,2} \rangle_{V_{1,1}, V_{1,2}} \cdots \langle \mathbf{v}_{n,1}, \mathbf{v}_{n,2} \rangle_{V_{n,1}, V_{n,2}} \mathbf{w} \quad (2.30)$$

2.5 Tensor Contractions

At this point, you may start to notice a pattern for tensor product actions. Neighboring chunks with compatible dual pairs are identified and evaluated. The resulting object is a vector or tensor of reduced dimensionality.

This can be extended into a general framework for multilinear contraction. The rule is to combine the innermost vectors using duality pairings, and combine the remaining objects on the outside with a tensor product. If only the innermost pair is combined, it's called a single contraction, marked with a dot. Two is a double contraction, marked with a colon, three is a triple contraction, marked with a triple dot, and so on.

$$\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{b} \cdot \mathbf{c} \otimes \mathbf{d} = \langle \mathbf{b}, \mathbf{c} \rangle \mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{d} \quad (2.31)$$

$$\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{b} \otimes \mathbf{c} : \mathbf{d} \otimes \mathbf{e} \otimes \mathbf{f} = \langle \mathbf{b}, \mathbf{d} \rangle \langle \mathbf{c}, \mathbf{e} \rangle \mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{f} \quad (2.32)$$

$$\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{b} \otimes \mathbf{c} \otimes \mathbf{d} \therefore \mathbf{e} \otimes \mathbf{f} \otimes \mathbf{g} \otimes \mathbf{h} = \langle \mathbf{b}, \mathbf{e} \rangle \langle \mathbf{c}, \mathbf{f} \rangle \langle \mathbf{d}, \mathbf{g} \rangle \mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{h} \quad (2.33)$$

$$\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{b} = \langle \mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b} \rangle \quad (2.34)$$

$$\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{b} : \mathbf{c} \otimes \mathbf{d} = \langle \mathbf{a}, \mathbf{c} \rangle \langle \mathbf{b}, \mathbf{d} \rangle \quad (2.35)$$

$$\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{b} \otimes \mathbf{c} \therefore \mathbf{d} \otimes \mathbf{e} \otimes \mathbf{f} = \langle \mathbf{a}, \mathbf{d} \rangle \langle \mathbf{b}, \mathbf{e} \rangle \langle \mathbf{c}, \mathbf{f} \rangle \quad (2.36)$$

$$(2.37)$$

A rule of thumb to check your work is that combining tensors of rank m and n with a p contraction results in a tensor object of rank $m + n - 2p$.

Chapter 3

Tensor Algebra

3.1 Tensor Algebra of a Vector Space

linear algebra

invariants

trace

det

ranks (m, n)

identity

also demonstrate hilbert space, antilinear result

adjoints etc

over underline otimes, 4th order transpose?

complexification

einstein index notation

adjoint revisited

complexification

metric tensor

hermitian metric tensor

3.2 Tensor Algebra of a Hilbert Space

tensor isomorphisms

metric tensor? or move it to geometry

computing things like arc length, invariance thereof

metric tensor and identity

3.3 Metric Tensor

3.4 Einstein Index Notation

3.5 Derivatives

frechet/gateaux/functional

show is member of tensor product space involving dual, leads to derivatives being done in cobasis

differential forms lmao

tensor invariants

Chapter 4

Geometric Foundations

4.1 Topology

euclidean space relate to $\mathbb{R}^n$, essentially affine space
homeomorphism

4.2 Manifolds

starting with set of locations, and some way to measure distances and angles
not establishing what these are but trusting they are enough for continuity
explain real and finite dimension

Definition 4.1 (Manifold) *A manifold M is a second-countable Hausdorff space that is locally homeomorphic to a Euclidean space.*

This local homeomorphism is established with maps to $\mathbb{R}^n$, called charts. This is a way of assigning local coordinate systems. A collection of charts is fittingly called an atlas, and maps out every location on the manifold to at least one set of coordinates.

As the names suggest, charts and atlases may not represent the actual geometry of the manifold. Opening up a world atlas, projections like equirectangular and Mercator warp the roughly spherical surface of the geoid, making sizes inconsistent, straight lines appear curved, and curved lines appear straight. Generally, norms and inner products on $\mathbb{R}^n$ do not capture the geometry of a manifold. Instead, other objects will be introduced.

Definition 4.2 (Chart) *A chart $\phi : U \leftrightarrow \phi(U) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is a homeomorphism from an open subset of a manifold $U \subseteq M$ to a subset of real numbers $\mathbb{R}^n$.*

A chart can be split to extract individual coordinate functions $x^i : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, with the convention $\phi(p) = (x^1(p), \dots, x^n(p))$.

Definition 4.3 (Atlas) *An atlas is a collection of charts whose domains cover a whole manifold.*

Definition 4.4 (Transition Map) *A transition map $\phi_b \circ \phi_a^{-1} : \mathbb{R}^n \supseteq \phi_a(U_a \cap U_b) \leftrightarrow \phi_b(U_a \cap U_b) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is a continuous map between the coordinates of overlapping charts.*

4.3 Vector Spaces on a Manifold

Bla bla bla first we start with tangent space, set of all velocities/directions, geometric intuition, now definition using derivatives since derivatives correspond to velocity.

4.3.1 Tangent Space

Definition 4.5 (Tangent Space) *The tangent space $T_p M$ of a point on a manifold $p \in M$ is a vector space representing all of the directions one can travel at that location. It may be constructed as $T_p M = C_p / \sim$, where C_p is the set of all continuous and differentiable curves passing through p , and $\sim$ is an equivalence relation determining whether two curves are tangent at p .*

The big challenge to overcome with this definition is that M is just a topological space. Continuity is possible, but the space may not even have a metric! What does it mean for curves to be differentiable? The solution is to represent the curves as functions from reals to reals, where continuity and differentiability are easy to define. They are parameterized with an input argument in $\mathbb{R}$, and mapped with a chart to $\mathbb{R}^n$. Because transition maps are constrained to be smooth, if these are shown for one chart (U, ϕ) , they apply for all relevant charts in the neighborhood.

Continuous and differentiable curves are ones which are continuous and differentiable when composed with any chart. The domain of $(-1, 1)$ and fixing p at 0 are just parameterization conventions for simplicity.

$$C_p = \{\gamma : (-1, 1) \rightarrow U : \gamma(0) = p \wedge (\phi \circ \gamma) \in C^1((-1, 1), \mathbb{R}^n)\} \quad (4.1)$$

In the same way, tangent curves are ones which are tangent through any chart.

$$\gamma_1 \sim \gamma_2 \iff \frac{d}{dt}(\phi \circ \gamma_1)(0) = \frac{d}{dt}(\phi \circ \gamma_2)(0) \quad (4.2)$$

The quotient set $C_p / \sim$ then contains equivalence classes $[\gamma]_\sim$ corresponding to the unique tangents at p . These tangents form a vector space isomorphic to $\mathbb{R}^n$ itself (Proof ??).

A basis can be constructed for the tangent space, with respect to a particular chart ϕ , by choosing curves γ_i which vary in only one coordinate. These can be constructed backwards from appropriately restricted c_i 's.

$$\begin{aligned} c_i(t) &= (p^1, \dots, p^i + t, \dots, p^n) : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^n \\ \gamma_i &= \phi^{-1} \circ c_i \\ \mathbf{e}_i &= [\gamma_i]_\sim \end{aligned}$$

Intuitively, these vectors point along the coordinate lines intersecting at p .

Definition 4.6 (Action of a Vector on a Function) *Any vector $\mathbf{v} = [\gamma]_\sim \in T_p M$ in the tangent space at p may act on a function $f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, defined in an open neighborhood $U \subseteq M$ with the following definition.*

$$\mathbf{v}(f) = \frac{d}{dt}(f \circ \gamma)(0) \quad (4.3)$$

This is a consistent definition because every vector corresponds to a unique equivalence class of curves, which all have the same derivative at p . This suggests a correspondence to directional derivatives, and indeed the basis vectors can be identified with derivative operators.

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{e}_i(f) &= \frac{d}{dt}(f \circ \gamma_i)(0) \\ &= \frac{d}{dt}(f \circ \phi^{-1} \circ c_i)(0) \\ &= \sum_{j=1}^n \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j}(f \circ \phi^{-1})(c_i(0)) \cdot [c_i'(0)]_j \\ &= \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}(f \circ \phi^{-1})(p^1, \dots, p^n) \end{aligned}$$

Using looser notation, $\mathbf{e}_i(f) = \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}$ at p . Note that $[c_i'(0)]_j$ refers to the j th component of c_i' at $t = 0$, which is 0 if $j \neq i$ and 1 if $j = i$.

4.3.2 Cotangent Space

Definition 4.7 *aaa*

4.4 Vector Fields on a Manifold

For any curve in the equivalence class,

Now that a vector space is defined at every point on the manifold, often we want to assign a particular vector at every location. For example, everywhere on the globe, the wind blows in a particular direction. This is called a vector field.

Definition 4.8 (Tangent Bundle) *The tangent bundle TM of a manifold M is the disjoint union of every tangent space on the manifold.*

$$TM = \bigsqcup_{p \in M} T_p M = \bigcup \{(p, \mathbf{v}) : p \in M, \mathbf{v} \in T_p M\} \quad (4.4)$$

A disjoint union merges sets while distinguishing which set each element originated from. bla bla bla reason

Definition 4.9 (Vector Field) *A vector field $\mathbf{u} : M \hookrightarrow TM$ maps every location p on a manifold M to a vector in that location's tangent space $T_p M$.*

By convention, the location in the ordered pair is redundant and ignored, so $\mathbf{u}(p) = (p, \mathbf{u}_p)$ is understood to refer just to $\mathbf{u}_p$.

Definition 4.10 (Differential) *content...*

Definition 4.11 (Cotangent Space) *content...*

Definition 4.12 (Cotangent Bundle) *content...*

vector fields as vector space w scalar at every location
 vector spaces are over what field
 something something coordinates
 basis field
 vector field that is also a vector space
 notation overloading
 derivative on manifold assumes using appropriate coordinates
 tangent bundle
 special disjoint union to maintain that every vector space is tied to a location
 use globe as example

Definition 4.13 (Cotangent Space) *The cotangent space $T_p^* M$ is the dual of the tangent space at the same point $(T_p M)^*$.*

explain differential forms, exterior derivative, dual basis link here

4.5 Introducing Geometry to a Manifold

bla bla bla coordinate system is no good for measuring distances, e.g. lat lon

Definition 4.14 (Metric Tensor) *A metric tensor g assigns a function $g(p) = g_p : T_p M \times T_p M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ to every point p on a manifold with the following properties.*

1. Bilinear

2. Symmetric

3. Non-degenerate

This bilinear form varies continuously across the manifold.

Because of the isomorphism between bilinear forms and tensors, $g_p \in T_p^*M \otimes T_p^*M$. It is a symmetric tensor of type $(0, 2)$. The components of the tensor using a particular basis are $g_{ij} = g(\mathbf{e}_i, \mathbf{e}_j)$.

The introduction of a length functional finally brings the concept of distances to a manifold. The length of a curve γ is defined as follows.

metric space

inverse metric tensor??

$$L[\gamma] = \int_{D(\gamma)} \sqrt{g_{\gamma(s)} \left(\frac{d}{dt} \gamma(s), \frac{d}{dt} \gamma(s) \right)} dt \quad (4.5)$$

Definition 4.15 (Metric Signature) *The metric signature (v, p, r) of a metric tensor g is the number of v positive, p negative, and r zero eigenvalues at a point $p \in M$.*

The non-degeneracy requirement means that $r = 0$, and the signature is constant throughout the manifold.

show pointwise vs field

signature

Definition 4.16 (Riemannian Metric) *A Riemannian metric is a metric tensor that is additionally positive-definite, i.e. an inner product.*

Definition 4.17 (Riemannian Manifold) *A Riemannian manifold is a sufficiently smooth manifold with a Riemannian metric.*

The introduction of an inner product finally brings the concept of norms and angles to the manifold, based on the law of cosines.

dot product here??

$$\|\mathbf{u}\| = \sqrt{g_p(\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{u})} \quad (4.6)$$

$$\cos(\theta) = \frac{g_p(\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v})}{\|\mathbf{u}\| \|\mathbf{v}\|} \quad (4.7)$$

Definition 4.18 (Christoffel Symbols) *content...*

$$\Gamma^i_{jk} = \left\langle \mathbf{e}^{i*}, \frac{\partial \mathbf{e}_j}{\partial x^k} \right\rangle$$

4.6 Exterior Geometry

Wedge product

Relate to cross product and skew maps

Never combine a vector and a normal!

Symmetry of the universe or whatever

Exterior derivative

Determinant of tensor

4.7 Checklist

topology

manifolds

(pseudo) riemannian

charts, atlases, coordinate maps

coordinate systems, several examples for different geometries

derivatives?

euclidean, elliptic, hyperbolic geometries

minkowski and lorentz spaces

curvature

using metric to define curvature

tangent space

tangent bundle

constructions

directional derivatives

frames of reference, galilean, lorentzian transformations

cartan 2 forms against christ awful

complexification in another chapter

differentials and derivatives as bases, dual pairs

parallel transport

Chapter 5

Complex Geometry

5.1 Complexification of a Vector Space

Chapter 6

Catalogue of Manifolds

6.1 Two-Dimensional Manifolds

6.1.1 Euclidean Plane

Cartesian Coordinates

Polar Coordinates

Bipolar Coordinates

6.1.2 Sphere

Cartesian Coordinates

Spherical Coordinates

6.1.3 Hyperbolic Plane

6.2 Three-Dimensional Manifolds

6.2.1 Euclidean Space

Cartesian Coordinates

Cylindrical Coordinates

Spherical Coordinates

Bicylindrical Coordinates

Bispherical Coordinates

Toroidal Coordinates

Chapter 7

Vectors

Ironically enough, this was the hardest section to write. It is easy to get lost in abstraction and pedantics, but it is important to break away from the notion of vectors and tensors as tables of numbers. They may be represented by tables of numbers, but since vectors in continuum mechanics are geometric quantities, those components are always relative to a particular frame of reference. Careful abstraction means that operations on vectors and tensors can be defined or proven generally, and then translated to any particularly useful coordinate system or basis once it becomes necessary.

I think that the best place to start is with vectors. Tensors are always defined relative to some kind of vector space. Even sticking with vectors and tensors as tables, a matrix is only useful insofar as it operates on vectors. Otherwise, a 3×3 matrix might be better suited as a 9-dimensional vector. The two spaces are isomorphic, so the only real difference is how they are used.

7.1 Geometric Spaces

Definition 7.1 (Euclidean Point Space) *The Euclidean point space*

Definition 7.2 (Euclidean Vector Space) *content...*

7.2 Vector Spaces in Continuum Mechanics

do a proper construction here

construction of euclidean geometry but don't get too lost

$\mathbb{R}^n$ is a Euclidean geometry, also cartesian coordinates

note on how velocity

also fields which are functions, algebra of fields is pointwise based, calculus is trickier

minkowski spaces

coordinate systems: cartesian, polar, spherical, navd88, wgs84

7.3 Getting Started

For all intents and purposes of continuum mechanics, it is sufficient to start with a Euclidean space, usually two- or three-dimensional, described by a Cartesian coordinate system, because this can be used to describe the physical world at our scale quite well.

7.3.1 Notation

Scalars are simply written as a letter, usually lower-case (a). Vectors are bolded ($\mathbf{a}$). When hand-written, they may have an arrow on top ($\vec{a}$) or a single underline ($\underline{a}$). Unit vectors, with a magnitude 1, may be

marked with a circumflex ($\hat{\mathbf{a}}$). Higher-order tensors are bolded and usually upper-case ($\mathbf{A}$). When written, they may have a number of underlines equal to their order.

7.4 Bases and Components

We start with some right-handed orthonormal basis $\{\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i\}_{i=1}^n$ for an n -dimensional Euclidean vector space $\mathbb{R}^n$. If these align with a Cartesian coordinate frame, or when a Cartesian coordinate frame is defined to line up with them, they're called the canonical basis, i.e. the standard one. Using the geometric definitions for the dot and cross product, the following relations exist between the basis vectors, represented in shorthand by the Kronecker delta δ and Levi-Civita symbol ϵ .

These products are both bilinear. The dot product commutes, and the cross product anti-commutes.

$$\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j = \delta_{ij} := \begin{cases} 1, & i = j, \\ 0, & i \neq j. \end{cases} \quad (7.1)$$

$$(\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \times \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j) \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k = \epsilon_{ijk} := \begin{cases} 1, & (i, j, k) = (1, 2, 3), (2, 3, 1), \text{ or } (3, 1, 2), \\ -1, & (i, j, k) = (3, 2, 1), (2, 1, 3), \text{ or } (1, 3, 2), \\ 0, & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases} \quad (7.2)$$

Since any basis set is linearly independent and spans the vector space, any vector in the space may be represented in terms of such a basis. The coefficients of the linear combination are called components. It is important to note that these are not the same as coordinates, especially for non-Cartesian coordinate systems.

$$\mathbf{a} = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \quad (7.3)$$

7.4.1 Cobasis

If the chosen basis is not orthonormal with respect to some inner product and corresponding induced norm, then there is some more nuance. Sidestepping the excess mental infrastructure of the dual space and Riesz representation, the cobasis of some basis $\{\mathbf{f}_i\}_{i=1}^n$, marked with a superscript as $\{\mathbf{f}^i\}_{i=1}^n$, is another basis for the same space, which is bi-orthonormal to the basis.

$$\mathbf{f}^i \cdot \mathbf{f}_j = \mathbf{f}_j \cdot \mathbf{f}^i = \delta_{ij} \quad (7.4)$$

Notation for components in a non-orthonormal basis is more complicated. The contravariant components of the basis use superscripts, and the covariant components of the cobasis use subscripts. This may seem backwards, but this is the convention that was developed.

$$\mathbf{a} = \sum_{i=1}^n \tilde{a}^i \mathbf{f}_i \quad (7.5)$$

$$\mathbf{a} = \sum_{i=1}^n \tilde{a}_i \mathbf{f}^i \quad (7.6)$$

Contra in contravariant refers to how the components scale inversely with the basis vectors. For example, if a basis is changed from inches to feet, the components used to represent a vector will shrink to represent the same length. On the other hand, the covariant components would increase.

If one goes further into the weeds of tensor-world, there is a whole shorthand system of upstairs and downstairs indices used for tensors defined by a certain combination of bases and cobases. However, in continuum-world, one can fudge over all of these nuances by choosing to use an orthonormal basis, which is conveniently its own cobasis.

7.4.2 Independence of Basis

That freedom of choice is an important idea behind this tensor system. Up until this point, you were probably used to seeing vectors and matrices as lists and tables of numbers. Start with a unit vector $(1, 0)$. Rotate the coordinate frame 45 degrees clockwise and you get $(\sqrt{2}/2, \sqrt{2}/2)$. This would seem like a new and unequal vector, since $(1, 0) \neq (\sqrt{2}/2, \sqrt{2}/2)$.

Writing them in terms of components of particular bases allows for more abstraction and flexibility. The vector is no longer the tuple per se, but is represented by a tuple in the context of a particular reference frame. The vector and the physical quantity it represents stay the same conceptually, regardless of the frame of reference: $\mathbf{a} = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i = \sum_{i=1}^n \tilde{a}^i \mathbf{f}_i = \sum_{i=1}^n \tilde{a}_i \mathbf{f}^i$. Only components vary. So we can say for the prior example, labeling the coordinate frames as A and B, $(1, 0)_A = (\sqrt{2}/2, \sqrt{2}/2)_B$. Operations and properties like an inner product, cross product, norm should stay the same, too. However, it may not necessarily be that $\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{b} = \sum_{i=1}^n \tilde{a}^i \tilde{b}_i$, because the dot product is defined geometrically, not algebraically.

7.4.3 Computing Components

differentiate coordinates and components

7.4.4 Curvilinear Coordinates

same vector using different coordinates

7.5 Kronecker Delta and Levi-Civita Symbol Identities

The Kronecker Delta and Levi-Civita Symbol have the following identities which are useful in proof.

$$a = b \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (7.7)$$

$$a = b \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (7.8)$$

$$\epsilon_{pqs} \epsilon_{nrs} = \delta_{pn} \delta_{qr} - \delta_{pr} \delta_{qn} \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (7.9)$$

$$\epsilon_{pqs} \epsilon_{rqs} = 2\delta_{pr} \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (7.10)$$

7.6 Einstein Notation

Chapter 8

Tensor Algebra

Scalars are so-called zeroth-order tensors, vectors are so-called first-order tensors, and any other kind of tensor can be constructed from these.

8.1 Abstract Definitions

start with linear operators, show component representation, introduce tensor product spaces with contraction operation and co/contrabasis, explain how other operations follow, introduce isomorphisms between everything

8.1.1 Dual/Adjoint Operator

8.1.2 Transpose Operator

maybe do some upstairs indices here
hilbert adjoint

8.1.3 Bilinear and Multilinear Operators

bilinear form gets you a tensor. Illustrate this, perhaps with a metric.

8.1.4 Tensor Product Space

aaa

8.2 Dyads and Dyadics

tensor product spaces
order and type covector-vector degree, dual = covector
build isomorphisms between tensors of same order

8.3 Contractions

8.4 Equivalence to Linear Algebra

isomorphic to linear algebra if appropriate combination of basis/cobasis
linearity
coordinate vs non coordinate basis
components

deltas and epsilons, symbols, only up to rank 2, etc
 einstein notation
 tensor as operator
 basis independence
 isomorphism
 definitions contrived to fulfill certain properties
 using dyadic symbol and not
 defining property of dyadic, compare to linear algebra
 simple properties of each product (distributive, associative, commutative) that may depend on the
 operands
 linear algebra comparison
 computing in canonical basis
 introducing the dot product
 introducing the cross product
 introducing the dyadic product
 specifically takes two vectors
 non commutative
 scalar rule
 simple contractions
 double contractions
 change of basis
 invariants of vectors and tensors
 symmetric, skew-symmetric
 complex numbers
 operations between tensors (to fit with vectors)
 metric tensor is in fact identity tensor in euclidean space
 change of basis tensor is identity tensor
 cross product is identity tensor
 symmetry-diagonalization through eigenvectors

- $\phi, \kappa \in \mathbb{R}$
- $\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b}, \mathbf{c}, \mathbf{d} \in \mathbb{R}^n$
- $\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^m$
- $\boldsymbol{\omega} \in \mathbb{R}^p$
- $\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{w} \in \mathbb{R}^3$
- $\mathbf{Q}, \mathbf{R} \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times m}$
- $\mathbf{S}, \mathbf{T} \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times n}$
- $\mathbf{U} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times p}$
- $\mathbf{A}, \mathbf{B} \in \mathbb{R}^{3 \times 3}$

INTRODUCING VECTORS

$$\mathbf{S} = \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n S_{ij} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \quad (8.1)$$

$$\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v} = \sum_{i=1}^3 \sum_{j=1}^3 \sum_{k=1}^3 u_i v_j \epsilon_{ijk} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \quad (8.2)$$

$$(8.3)$$

INTRODUCING TENSORS

$$(\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{x}) \mathbf{y} := \mathbf{a} (\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{y}) \quad (8.4)$$

$$\mathbf{a} \cdot (\mathbf{b} \otimes \mathbf{x}) := (\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{b}) \mathbf{x} \quad (8.5)$$

$$\mathbf{x} \cdot (\mathbf{y} \otimes \mathbf{a}) \mathbf{b} = \dots \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (8.6)$$

$$(\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{x})^T := \mathbf{x} \otimes \mathbf{a} \quad (8.7)$$

$$\text{tr}(\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{b}) := \mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{b} \quad (8.8)$$

$$(\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{x}) (\mathbf{y} \otimes \boldsymbol{\omega}) = (\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{y}) (\mathbf{a} \otimes \boldsymbol{\omega}) \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (8.9)$$

$$(\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{x}) : (\mathbf{b} \otimes \mathbf{y}) := (\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{b}) (\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{y}) \quad (8.10)$$

$$\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{x} = \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^m a_i x_j \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \quad (8.11)$$

$$(8.12)$$

CONTRACTIONS

$$\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{b} = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i \quad \text{Proof A.1} \quad (8.13)$$

$$\mathbf{S} \mathbf{a} = \mathbf{S} \cdot \mathbf{a} = \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n S_{ij} a_j \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \quad \text{Proof A.2} \quad (8.14)$$

$$\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{S} = \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{k=1}^n x_i S_{ik} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \quad \text{Proof A.3} \quad (8.15)$$

$$\mathbf{S} \mathbf{U} = \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{\ell=1}^p S_{ij} U_{j\ell} (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\ell) \quad \text{Proof A.4} \quad (8.16)$$

$$\mathbf{S} : \mathbf{T} = \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n S_{ij} T_{ij} \quad \text{Proof A.5} \quad (8.17)$$

8.5 Miscellaneous Operations

8.5.1 Change of Basis

The beauty of an abstract approach to tensors is recognizing that any change-of-basis matrix corresponds to the identity tensor expressed with components in a particular basis. After all, no matter what basis you use, the geometric quantity is the same, its the components and bases that change.

8.6 Helpful Identities

$$\mathbf{S} \mathbf{a} = \mathbf{a} \cdot (\mathbf{S}^T) \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (8.18)$$

$$(\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{S}) \cdot \mathbf{a} = \mathbf{x} \cdot (\mathbf{S} \mathbf{a}) \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (8.19)$$

$$(\mathbf{S}^T) : \mathbf{V} = \mathbf{S} : (\mathbf{V}^T) \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (8.20)$$

Chapter 9

Tensor Calculus

define div grad and curl properly

associated with manifold, represented by set of points and metric

differentiate nabla and grad

in different coordinate systems

expand to field...define operations...basis changes locally

algebraic and geometric definitions which conveniently coincide for a euclidean geometry described by a cartesian coordinate system

INTRODUCING NABLA OPERATOR

9.1 Introducing Nabla

$$\nabla := \sum_{i=1}^m \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \quad (9.1)$$

$$\nabla[\dots] = \nabla \otimes [\dots] := \sum_{i=1}^m \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} [\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \dots] \quad (9.2)$$

$$\nabla \cdot [\dots] := \sum_{i=1}^m \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} [\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot \dots] \quad (9.3)$$

$$\nabla \times [\dots] := \sum_{i=1}^m \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} [\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \times \dots] \quad (9.4)$$

9.2 Gradient

$$\nabla \phi = \dots \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (9.5)$$

$$\nabla \mathbf{a} = \dots \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (9.6)$$

$$\nabla \mathbf{S} = \dots \quad \text{Proof ??} \quad (9.7)$$

$$\text{grad } \phi = \dots \quad (9.8)$$

$$\text{grad } \mathbf{a} = \dots \quad (9.9)$$

$$\text{grad } \mathbf{S} = \dots \quad (9.10)$$

$$(9.11)$$

9.2.1 Gradient Product Rules

First Order Value, Zeroth Order Operand

$$\begin{aligned}\nabla(\phi\kappa) &= \phi\nabla\kappa + \kappa\nabla\phi && \text{Proof ?? (9.12)} \\ \nabla(\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{b}) &= (\nabla\mathbf{b})\mathbf{a} + (\nabla\mathbf{a})\mathbf{b}^{***} && \text{Proof ?? (9.13)} \\ \nabla(\mathbf{S} : \mathbf{T}) &= (\nabla\mathbf{T}) : \mathbf{S} + (\nabla\mathbf{S}) : \mathbf{T} && \text{Proof ?? (9.14)}\end{aligned}$$

Second Order Value, First Order Operand

$$\begin{aligned}\nabla(\phi\mathbf{a}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.15)} \\ \nabla(\mathbf{S}\mathbf{a}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.16)} \\ \nabla(\mathbf{y} \cdot \mathbf{S}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.17)} \\ \nabla(\mathcal{D} : \mathbf{S}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.18)} \\ \nabla(\mathbf{S} : \mathcal{D}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.19)} \\ \nabla(\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.20)}\end{aligned}$$

Third Order Value, Second Order Operand

$$\begin{aligned}\nabla(\phi\mathbf{S}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.21)} \\ \nabla(\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{y}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.22)} \\ \nabla(\mathbf{S}\mathbf{U}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.23)} \\ \nabla(\mathcal{D} \cdot \mathbf{a}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.24)} \\ \nabla(\mathbf{y} \cdot \mathcal{D}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.25)}\end{aligned}$$

9.3 Divergence

$$\begin{aligned}\nabla \cdot \mathbf{a} &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.26)} \\ \nabla \cdot \mathbf{S} &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.27)} \\ \text{div } \mathbf{a} &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.28)} \\ \text{div } \mathbf{S} &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.29)}\end{aligned}$$

9.3.1 Divergence Product Rules

Zeroth Order Value, First Order Operand

$$\begin{aligned}\nabla \cdot (\phi\mathbf{a}) &= \phi\nabla \cdot \mathbf{a} + \mathbf{a} \cdot \nabla\phi && \text{Proof A.6 (9.30)} \\ \nabla \cdot (\mathbf{S}\mathbf{a}) &= \mathbf{S} : \nabla\mathbf{a} + \mathbf{a} \cdot (\nabla \cdot \mathbf{S}) && \text{Proof ?? (9.31)} \\ \nabla \cdot (\mathbf{y} \cdot \mathbf{S}) &= (\mathbf{S}^T) : \nabla\mathbf{y} + \mathbf{y} \cdot (\nabla \cdot (\mathbf{S}^T)) && \text{Proof ?? (9.32)} \\ \nabla \cdot (\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}) &= \dots && \text{Proof ?? (9.33)}\end{aligned}$$

First Order Value, Second Order Operand

$$\begin{aligned}\nabla \cdot (\phi\mathbf{S}) &= \phi\nabla \cdot \mathbf{S} + \nabla\phi \cdot \mathbf{S} && \text{Proof A.7 (9.34)} \\ \nabla \cdot (\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{y}) &= \mathbf{a} \cdot \nabla\mathbf{y} + \mathbf{y} (\nabla \cdot \mathbf{a}) && \text{Proof ?? (9.35)} \\ \nabla \cdot (\mathbf{S}\mathbf{U}) &= \mathbf{S} : (\nabla\mathbf{U}) + (\nabla \cdot \mathbf{S}) \mathbf{U} && \text{Proof ?? (9.36)}\end{aligned}$$

9.4 Curl

$$\nabla \times \mathbf{a} = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.37)}$$

$$\nabla \times \mathbf{S} = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.38)}$$

$$\text{curl } \mathbf{a} = \dots \quad (9.39)$$

$$\text{curl } \mathbf{S} = \dots \quad (9.40)$$

9.4.1 Curl Product Rules

First Order Value, First Order Operand

9.5 Laplacian

9.5.1 Laplacian Product Rules

Zeroth Order Value, Zeroth Order Operand

$$\nabla^2 (\phi \kappa) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.41)}$$

$$\nabla^2 (\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{b}) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.42)}$$

$$\nabla^2 (\mathbf{S} : \mathbf{T}) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.43)}$$

First Order Value, First Order Operand

$$\nabla^2 (\phi \mathbf{a}) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.44)}$$

$$\nabla^2 (\mathbf{S} \mathbf{a}) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.45)}$$

$$\nabla^2 (\mathbf{y} \cdot \mathbf{S}) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.46)}$$

$$\nabla^2 (\mathbf{u} \times \mathbf{v}) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.47)}$$

Second Order Value, Second Order Operand

$$\nabla^2 (\phi \mathbf{S}) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.48)}$$

$$\nabla^2 (\mathbf{a} \otimes \mathbf{y}) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.49)}$$

$$\nabla^2 (\mathbf{S} \mathbf{U}) = \dots \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.50)}$$

9.6 Other Second Derivatives

div of curl = 0

curl of grad = 0

curl curl to grad div/ laplacian

$$(\text{skew grad } \mathbf{u}) \mathbf{v} = \frac{1}{2} (\nabla \times \mathbf{u}) \times \mathbf{v} \quad \text{Proof ?? (9.51)}$$

9.7 Function Derivatives

derivative of vector value/input functions

compositions thereof

derivative of determinant, etc

grad div relation

Chapter 10

Kinematics

Topics:

- different frames
- deformation map
- all the different kinds of tensors
- material and spatial fields
- derivatives of material and spatial fields
- integral change of variables with jacobian

10.1 Kinematic Variables

- $\mathbf{U}, \mathbf{u}$: displacement in material/spatial frames
 - $\mathbf{U} := \boldsymbol{\phi}_t - \mathbf{X}$
- $\mathbf{V}, \mathbf{v}$: velocity in material/spatial frames
 - $\mathbf{V} := \frac{\partial \boldsymbol{\phi}}{\partial t}$
- $\mathbf{L}$: velocity gradient in spatial frame
 - $\mathbf{L} := \text{grad } \mathbf{v}$
- $\mathbf{D} = \mathbf{D}(\mathbf{X}, t)$: symmetric component of velocity gradient in material frame???
 - $\mathbf{D} := \frac{1}{2} (\mathbf{L} + \mathbf{L}^T)$
- $\mathbf{W} = \mathbf{W}(\mathbf{X}, t)$: skew-symmetric component of velocity gradient in material frame???
 - $\mathbf{W} := \frac{1}{2} (\mathbf{L} - \mathbf{L}^T)$

Chapter 11

Conservation Laws

11.1 Continuum Mechanics Assumptions

define control volume properly, relate $\mathbf{v}_t$ to $\mathbf{v}_0$, same for $\boldsymbol{\omega}$

11.2 Conservation Law Variables

explain convention that $Q(\mathbf{X}, t) = q(\boldsymbol{\varphi}(\mathbf{X}, t), t)$, also define ρ not and show that it is constant??

- ϱ, ρ : density in material/spatial frames
- $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}, \boldsymbol{\sigma}$: Cauchy stress tensor in material/spatial frames
- $\mathbf{S}$: second Piola-Kirchoff stress tensor in material frame
 - $\mathbf{S} := J\mathbf{F}^{-1}\boldsymbol{\Sigma}\mathbf{F}^{-T}$
- $\mathbf{P} = \mathbf{P}(\mathbf{X}, t)$: first Piola-Kirchoff stress tensor in material frame
 - $\mathbf{P} := J\boldsymbol{\Sigma}\mathbf{F}^{-T} = \mathbf{F}\mathbf{S}$
- $\mathbf{B}, \mathbf{b}$: body force per unit mass in material/spatial frames
- E, e : energy per unit mass in material frame
- I, i : internal energy per unit mass in material frame
- $i = i(\mathbf{X}, t)$: potential? energy per unit mass in spatial frame
- $\mathbf{Q}, \mathbf{q}$: heat flux in material/spatial frames

11.3 Reynold's Transport Theorem

$$\frac{d}{dt} \int_{V(t)} q \, d\Omega_t = \int_{V(t)} \frac{\partial q}{\partial t} \, d\Omega_t + \oint_{\partial V(t)} q \mathbf{v} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{n}} \, dS \quad \text{Proof ?? (11.1)}$$

$$\frac{d}{dt} \int_{V(t)} \mathbf{q} \, d\Omega_t = \int_{V(t)} \frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} \, d\Omega_t + \oint_{\partial V(t)} \mathbf{q} (\mathbf{v} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{n}}) \, dS \quad \text{Proof ?? (11.2)}$$

11.4 Closures

11.4.1 Cauchy Stress Hypothesis

something something importance for divergence theorem and converting to differential form

$$\mathbf{t} = \boldsymbol{\sigma} \hat{\mathbf{n}} \quad (11.3)$$

11.4.2 Energy of Mass

$$E = I + \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{V} \cdot \mathbf{V} \quad (11.4)$$

$$e = i + \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{v} \cdot \mathbf{v} \quad (11.5)$$

11.5 Generic Scalar Conservation Laws

explain vars here, v sub omega, yadda yadda

11.5.1 Material Frame

$$\frac{d}{dt} \int_{V_0} QJ \, d\Omega_0 = \oint_{\partial V_0} \boldsymbol{\Phi} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{N}} J \, dS_0 + \int_{V_0} RJ \, d\Omega_0 \quad \text{Integral form. Proof ??} \quad (11.6)$$

$$\frac{d(QJ)}{dt} = -\operatorname{div}_{\mathbf{X}} (\boldsymbol{\Phi} \cdot \mathbf{F}^{-T} J) + RJ \quad \text{Differential form. Proof ??} \quad (11.7)$$

If the conserved property is intensive, expressed per unit mass, the following conservation laws may be derived.

$$\int_{V_0} \rho_0 \frac{d\tilde{Q}}{dt} \, d\Omega_0 = \oint_{\partial V_0} \boldsymbol{\Phi} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{N}} J \, dS_0 + \int_{V_0} RJ \, d\Omega_0 \quad \text{Integral form. Proof ??} \quad (11.8)$$

$$\rho_0 \frac{d\tilde{Q}}{dt} = -\operatorname{div}_{\mathbf{X}} (\boldsymbol{\Phi} \cdot \mathbf{F}^{-T} J) + RJ \quad \text{Differential form. Proof ??} \quad (11.9)$$

11.5.2 Spatial Frame

$$\frac{d}{dt} \int_{V(t)} q \, d\Omega_t = - \oint_{\partial V(t)} \boldsymbol{\phi} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{n}} \, dS + \int_{V(t)} r \, d\Omega_t \quad \text{Integral form. Proof ??} \quad (11.10)$$

$$\frac{\partial q}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div}(q\mathbf{v}) = -\operatorname{div} \boldsymbol{\phi} + r \quad \text{Differential form. Proof ??} \quad (11.11)$$

If the conserved property is intensive, expressed per unit mass, the following conservation laws may be derived.

$$\int_{V(t)} \rho \left(\frac{\partial \tilde{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{grad} \tilde{q} \cdot \mathbf{v} \right) d\Omega_t = - \oint_{\partial V(t)} \boldsymbol{\phi} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{n}} \, dS + \int_{V(t)} r \, d\Omega_t \quad \text{Integral form. Proof ??} \quad (11.12)$$

$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial \tilde{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{grad} \tilde{q} \cdot \mathbf{v} \right) = -\operatorname{div} \boldsymbol{\phi} + r \quad \text{Differential form. Proof ??} \quad (11.13)$$

11.6 Generic Vector Conservation Laws

explain vars here, v sub omega, yadda yadda

11.6.1 Material Frame

$$\frac{d}{dt} \int_{V_0} \mathbf{Q} J \, d\Omega_0 = \oint_{\partial V_0} \Phi \hat{\mathbf{N}} J \, dS_0 + \int_{V_0} \mathbf{R} J \, d\Omega_0 \quad \text{Integral form. Proof ?? (11.14)}$$

$$\frac{d(\mathbf{Q} J)}{dt} = -\operatorname{div}_{\mathbf{X}} (\Phi \mathbf{F}^{-T} J) + \mathbf{R} J \quad \text{Differential form. Proof ?? (11.15)}$$

If the conserved property is intensive, expressed per unit mass, the following conservation laws may be derived.

$$\int_{V_0} \rho_0 \frac{d\tilde{\mathbf{Q}}}{dt} \, d\Omega_0 = \oint_{\partial V_0} \Phi \hat{\mathbf{N}} J \, dS_0 + \int_{V_0} \mathbf{R} J \, d\Omega_0 \quad \text{Integral form. Proof ?? (11.16)}$$

$$\rho_0 \frac{d\tilde{\mathbf{Q}}}{dt} = -\operatorname{div}_{\mathbf{X}} (\Phi \mathbf{F}^{-T} J) + \mathbf{R} J \quad \text{Differential form. Proof ?? (11.17)}$$

11.6.2 Spatial Frame

$$\frac{d}{dt} \int_{V(t)} \mathbf{q} \, d\Omega_t = - \oint_{\partial V(t)} \phi \hat{\mathbf{n}} \, dS + \int_{V(t)} \mathbf{r} \, d\Omega_t \quad \text{Integral form. Proof ?? (11.18)}$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} (\mathbf{q} \otimes \mathbf{v}) = -\operatorname{div} \phi + \mathbf{r} \quad \text{Differential form. Proof ?? (11.19)}$$

If the conserved property is intensive, expressed per unit mass, the following conservation laws may be derived.

$$\int_{V(t)} \rho \left(\frac{\partial \tilde{\mathbf{q}}}{\partial t} + (\operatorname{grad} \tilde{\mathbf{q}}) \mathbf{v} \right) \, d\Omega_t = - \oint_{\partial V(t)} \phi \hat{\mathbf{n}} \, dS + \int_{V(t)} \mathbf{r} \, d\Omega_t \quad \text{Integral form. Proof ?? (11.20)}$$

$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial \tilde{\mathbf{q}}}{\partial t} + (\operatorname{grad} \tilde{\mathbf{q}}) \mathbf{v} \right) = -\operatorname{div} \phi + \mathbf{r} \quad \text{Differential form. Proof ?? (11.21)}$$

11.7 Conservation of Mass

for applied laws, there are a million ways to express, but only including useful ones

- Quantity: mass, $Q = \varrho, q = \rho$
- Surface fluxes: none, $\Phi = \mathbf{0}, \phi = \mathbf{0}$
- Internal sources: none, $R = 0, r = 0$

11.7.1 Material Frame

$$\rho_0 = \varrho J \quad \text{Proof ?? (11.22)}$$

11.7.2 Spatial Frame

$$\frac{\partial \rho}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} (\rho \mathbf{v}) = 0 \quad \text{Conservative form. Proof ?? (11.23)}$$

11.8 Conservation of Momentum

- Quantity: momentum, $\mathbf{Q} = \varrho \mathbf{V}$, $\mathbf{q} = \rho \mathbf{v}$
- Surface fluxes: Cauchy stress, $\Phi = -\Sigma$, $\phi = -\sigma$
- Internal sources: body forces, $\mathbf{R} = \varrho \mathbf{B}$, $\mathbf{r} = \rho \mathbf{b}$

11.8.1 Material Frame

$$\rho_0 \frac{dV}{dt} = \operatorname{div}_{\mathbf{X}} \mathbf{P} + \rho_0 \mathbf{B} \quad \text{Proof ?? (11.24)}$$

11.8.2 Spatial Frame

$$\frac{\partial(\rho \mathbf{v})}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div}(\rho \mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{v}) = \operatorname{div} \boldsymbol{\sigma} + \rho \mathbf{b} \quad \text{Conservative form. Proof ?? (11.25)}$$

$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial \mathbf{v}}{\partial t} + (\operatorname{grad} \mathbf{v}) \mathbf{v} \right) = \operatorname{div} \boldsymbol{\sigma} + \rho \mathbf{b} \quad \text{Reduced form. Proof ?? (11.26)}$$

11.9 Conservation of Angular Momentum

- Quantity: angular momentum, $\mathbf{Q} = \boldsymbol{\varphi} \times \varrho \mathbf{V}$, $\mathbf{q} = \mathbf{x} \times \rho \mathbf{v}$
- Surface fluxes: Cauchy torque, $\Phi = -\boldsymbol{\varphi} \times \Sigma$, $\phi = -\mathbf{x} \times \boldsymbol{\sigma}$
- Internal sources: body torques, $\mathbf{R} = \boldsymbol{\varphi} \times \varrho \mathbf{B}$, $\mathbf{r} = \mathbf{x} \times \rho \mathbf{b}$

11.9.1 Material Frame

$$\mathbf{S} = \mathbf{S}^T \quad \text{Reduced form. Proof ?? (11.27)}$$

11.9.2 Spatial Frame

$$\frac{\partial(\mathbf{x} \times \rho \mathbf{v})}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div}(\mathbf{x} \times \rho \mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{v}) = \operatorname{div}(\mathbf{x} \times \boldsymbol{\sigma}) + \mathbf{x} \times \rho \mathbf{b} \quad \text{Conservative form. Proof ?? (11.28)}$$

$$\boldsymbol{\sigma} = \boldsymbol{\sigma}^T \quad \text{Reduced form. Proof ?? (11.29)}$$

11.10 Conservation of Energy

- Quantity: energy, $Q = E$, $q = e$
- Surface fluxes: Cauchy power and heat flux, $\Phi = -\mathbf{V} \cdot \Sigma + \mathbf{Q}$, $\phi = -\mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} + \mathbf{q}$
- Internal sources: body force power and generic energy sources, $R = \varrho \mathbf{B} \cdot \mathbf{B} + \varrho R$, $r = \rho \mathbf{b} \cdot \mathbf{v} + \rho r$

11.10.1 Material Frame

$$\rho_0 \frac{dI}{dt} = \mathbf{S} : \mathbf{D} - \operatorname{div}_{\mathbf{X}} \mathbf{Q} + \rho_0 \mathbf{R} \quad \text{Proof ?? (11.30)}$$

11.10.2 Spatial Frame

$$\frac{\partial(\rho e)}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div}(\rho e \mathbf{v}) = \operatorname{div}(\mathbf{v} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} - \mathbf{q}) + \rho \mathbf{b} \cdot \mathbf{v} + \rho r \quad \text{Conservative form. Proof ?? (11.31)}$$

$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial e}{\partial t} + \operatorname{grad} e \cdot \mathbf{v} \right) = \text{???} - \operatorname{div} \mathbf{q} + \rho \mathbf{b} \cdot \mathbf{v} + \rho r \quad \text{Reduced form. Proof ?? (11.32)}$$

$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial i}{\partial t} + \operatorname{grad} i \cdot \mathbf{v} \right) = \boldsymbol{\sigma} : \mathbf{d} - \operatorname{div} \mathbf{q} + \rho r \quad \text{Reduced form. Proof ?? (11.33)}$$

11.11 Entropy Inequality

- Quantity: entropy, $Q = N, q = \eta$
- Surface fluxes: entropy from heat flux, $\Phi = \frac{\mathbf{Q}}{\Theta}, \phi = \frac{\mathbf{q}}{\theta}$
- Internal sources: entropy generation from energy sources, $R = \varrho \frac{R}{\Theta}, r = \rho \frac{r}{\theta}$

11.11.1 Material Frame

$$\rho_0 \frac{dN}{dt} + \operatorname{div}_{\mathbf{x}} \frac{\mathbf{Q}}{\Theta} - \rho_0 \frac{R}{\Theta} \geq 0 \quad \text{Proof ?? (11.34)}$$

11.11.2 Spatial Frame

$$\frac{\partial(\rho \eta)}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div}(\rho \eta \mathbf{v}) + \operatorname{div} \frac{\mathbf{q}}{\Theta} - \rho \frac{r}{\theta} \geq 0 \quad \text{Conservative form. Proof ?? (11.35)}$$

$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial \eta}{\partial t} + \operatorname{grad} \eta \cdot \mathbf{v} \right) + \operatorname{div} \frac{\mathbf{q}}{\Theta} - \rho \frac{r}{\theta} \geq 0 \quad \text{Reduced form. Proof ?? (11.36)}$$

11.12 Advection Diffusion Reaction Equation

This is essentially a variant of the conservation of momentum. It can be applied to particles advected by a fluid, for example.

- Quantity: mass, $Q = C, q = c$
- Surface fluxes: diffusion, $\Phi = \text{???}, \phi = -\mathbf{D} \operatorname{grad} c$
- Internal sources: reaction, $R = R, r = r$

$$\frac{\partial c}{\partial t} + \nabla \cdot (\mathbf{v} c - \mathbf{D} \nabla c) = R \quad \text{Proof ?? (11.37)}$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{c}}{\partial t} + \nabla \cdot (\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{c} - \mathcal{D} : \nabla \mathbf{c}) = R \quad \text{Proof ?? (11.38)}$$

11.13 Advanced Formulations

e.g. curvature-dependent, hyperstress

Chapter 12

Interpreting Linear Equations

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_p = 0 \quad (12.1)$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_{\mathbf{q}} = 0 \quad (12.2)$$

12.1 Pure Behaviors

12.1.1 Advection

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div}(p\mathbf{c}) = 0 \quad (12.3)$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div}(\mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{q}) = 0 \quad (12.4)$$

solution

12.1.2 Compressive Wave

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{q} = 0 \quad (12.5)$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div}(c^2 p \mathbf{I}) = 0 \quad (12.6)$$

12.1.3 Shear Wave

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_p = 0 \quad (12.7)$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_{\mathbf{q}} = 0 \quad (12.8)$$

12.1.4 Scalar Diffusion

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_p = 0 \quad (12.9)$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_{\mathbf{q}} = 0 \quad (12.10)$$

12.1.5 Vector Diffusion

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_p = 0 \quad (12.11)$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_q = 0 \quad (12.12)$$

12.1.6 Scalar Dispersion

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_p = 0 \quad (12.13)$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_q = 0 \quad (12.14)$$

12.1.7 Vector Dispersion

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_p = 0 \quad (12.15)$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \mathbf{F}_q = 0 \quad (12.16)$$

12.2 Advection Equations

12.2.1 Advection-Diffusion Equation

12.2.2 Advection-Dispersion Equation

12.3 Wave Equations

12.3.1 Advected Wave Equation

$$\frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} (\mathbf{q} + p\mathbf{v}) = 0 \quad (12.17)$$

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{q}}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} (p\mathbf{I} + \mathbf{v} \otimes \mathbf{q}) = 0 \quad (12.18)$$

advection
compressive wave
shear wave
diffusion
dispersion

12.4 Anisotropic

do I use compliance tensor $\mathbb{A}$?

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial^2 p}{\partial t^2} - \operatorname{div} (\mathbf{A} \operatorname{grad} p) &= 0 \\ \frac{\partial^2 \boldsymbol{\varphi}}{\partial t^2} - \operatorname{div} (\mathbb{C} : \operatorname{symm} \operatorname{grad} \boldsymbol{\varphi}) &= 0 \\ \operatorname{div} (\mathbf{I} \otimes \mathbf{I} : \operatorname{grad} \mathbf{u}) &= \operatorname{grad} (\operatorname{div} \mathbf{u}) \end{aligned}$$

Chapter 13

Solid Mechanics

general

elastic waves

thermoelastic solid

engineering stress example

eventually work to 1d stress-strain

13.1 Provisional Constitutive Laws

- $\mathbb{C}$ = ??? : elasticity tensor in material frame

$$- \mathbb{C} := \frac{\partial \mathbf{S}}{\partial \mathbf{E}} = \frac{\partial^2 \hat{\Psi}}{\partial \mathbf{E}^2}$$

- = ??? : elasticity tensor in spatial frame

13.2 Elastic Wave Equations

$$\rho \frac{\partial^2 \mathbf{u}}{\partial t^2} - \operatorname{div} \boldsymbol{\sigma} = 0 \quad \text{Proof ?? (13.1)}$$

$$\rho \frac{\partial \mathbf{u}}{\partial t} = (\lambda + 2\mu) \operatorname{grad} (\operatorname{div} \mathbf{u}) - \mu \operatorname{curl}^2 \mathbf{u} \quad \text{hm (13.2)}$$

$$(13.3)$$

$$\mathbb{C} = \lambda \mathbf{I} \otimes \mathbf{I} + \mu \mathbb{I}$$

$$c = \frac{1}{J} (\mathbf{F} \otimes \mathbf{F}) : \mathbb{C} : (\mathbf{F}^T \otimes \mathbf{F}^T) \quad (13.4)$$

Chapter 14

Fluid Mechanics

full navier stokes

incompressible

rans

stokes flow

euler equations

acoustic equations

my special acoustic equations

shallow water equations

14.1 Shallow Water Equations

conservative, non-conservative, cartesian, navd88, wgs84

$$\frac{\partial (\rho\eta)}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} (\rho\eta\mathbf{u}) = 0 \quad \text{Proof ?? (14.1)}$$
$$\frac{\partial (\rho\eta\mathbf{u})}{\partial t} + \operatorname{div} \left(\rho\eta\mathbf{u} \otimes \mathbf{u} + \frac{1}{2}\rho g\eta^2 \mathbf{I} \right) = 0 \quad \text{Proof ?? (14.2)}$$

$$\frac{\partial (\rho\eta)}{\partial t} + \nabla \cdot (\rho\eta\mathbf{u}) = 0 \quad \text{Proof ?? (14.3)}$$
$$\frac{\partial (\rho\eta\mathbf{u})}{\partial t} + \nabla \cdot (\rho\eta\mathbf{u} \otimes \mathbf{u}) + \nabla \cdot \frac{1}{2}\rho g\eta^2 = 0 \quad \text{Proof ?? (14.4)}$$

14.1.1 Closures and Assumptions

diffusive wave equations

bernoulli

groundwater darcy flow

14.2 Acoustic-Gravity Wave Equations

$$\rho \frac{\partial \mathbf{u}}{\partial t} + \text{grad } p = 0 \quad \text{Proof ?? (14.5)}$$

$$\frac{1}{K} \frac{\partial p}{\partial t} + \text{div } \mathbf{u} = 0 \quad (14.6)$$

$$p = \rho g \eta \quad (14.7)$$

$$\frac{\partial \eta}{\partial t} = \mathbf{u} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{n}} \quad (14.8)$$

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{n}} = -\frac{\partial b}{\partial t} \quad (14.9)$$

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \hat{\mathbf{n}} = \frac{1}{Z} p \quad (14.10)$$

boussinesq equations

SGN equations

telegrapher's equations

Appendix A

Proofs

Proof A.1 (Equation 7.13)

$$\mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{b} = \left(\sum_{i=1}^n a_i \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \right) \cdot \left(\sum_{j=1}^n b_j \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \right) \quad \text{Using 6.3 (A.1)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n a_i b_j \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \quad (\text{A.2})$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i \quad \text{Using 6.1 (A.3)}$$

Proof A.2 (Equation 7.14)

$$\mathbf{S}\mathbf{a} = \left(\sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n S_{ij} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \right) \left(\sum_{k=1}^n a_k \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \right) \quad \text{Using 7.1, 6.3 (A.4)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^n S_{ij} a_k (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j) \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \quad (\text{A.5})$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^n S_{ij} a_k \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k) \quad \text{Using 7.4 (A.6)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n S_{ij} a_j \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \quad \text{Using 6.1 (A.7)}$$

Proof A.3 (Equation 7.15)

$$\mathbf{x} \cdot \mathbf{S} = \left(\sum_{i=1}^n x_i \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \right) \cdot \left(\sum_{j=1}^m \sum_{k=1}^n S_{jk} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \right) \quad \text{Using 6.3, 7.1 (A.8)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^m \sum_{k=1}^n x_i S_{jk} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k) \quad (\text{A.9})$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^m \sum_{k=1}^n x_i S_{jk} (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j) \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \quad \text{Using 7.5 (A.10)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{k=1}^n x_i S_{ik} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \quad \text{Using 6.1 (A.11)}$$

Proof A.4 (Equation 7.16)

$$\mathbf{S}\mathbf{U} = \left(\sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n S_{ij} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \right) \left(\sum_{k=1}^n \sum_{\ell=1}^p U_{k\ell} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\ell \right) \quad \text{Using 7.1 (A.12)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^n \sum_{\ell=1}^p S_{ij} U_{k\ell} (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j) (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\ell) \quad (\text{A.13})$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^n \sum_{\ell=1}^p S_{ij} U_{k\ell} (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k) (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\ell) \quad \text{Using 7.9 (A.14)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{\ell=1}^p S_{ij} U_{j\ell} (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\ell) \quad \text{Using 6.1 (A.15)}$$

Proof A.5 (Equation 7.17)

$$\mathbf{S} : \mathbf{T} = \left(\sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n S_{ij} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \right) : \left(\sum_{k=1}^m \sum_{\ell=1}^m T_{k\ell} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\ell \right) \quad \text{Using 7.1 (A.16)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^m \sum_{\ell=1}^m S_{ij} T_{k\ell} (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j) : (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\ell) \quad (\text{A.17})$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^m \sum_{\ell=1}^m S_{ij} T_{k\ell} (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k) (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_\ell) \quad \text{Using 7.10 (A.18)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^n S_{ij} T_{ij} \quad \text{Using 6.1 (A.19)}$$

$$(\text{A.20})$$

Proof A.6 (Equation 8.30)

$$\nabla \cdot (\phi \mathbf{a}) = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} \left[\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot \left(\phi \sum_{j=1}^n a_j \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \right) \right] \quad \text{Using 8.3, 6.3 (A.21)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^n \frac{\partial \phi a_j}{\partial x_i} (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j) \quad (\text{A.22})$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial \phi a_i}{\partial x_i} \quad \text{Using 6.1 (A.23)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^n \left(\phi \frac{\partial a_i}{\partial x_i} + a_i \frac{\partial \phi}{\partial x_i} \right) \quad (\text{A.24})$$

$$= \phi \nabla \cdot \mathbf{a} + \mathbf{a} \cdot \nabla \phi \quad \text{Using 8.26, 7.13, 8.5 (A.25)}$$

Proof A.7 (Equation 8.34)

$$\nabla \cdot (\phi \mathbf{S}) = \left(\sum_{i=1}^m \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} \right) \cdot \left(\phi \sum_{j=1}^m \sum_{k=1}^n S_{jk} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \right) \quad \text{Using 8.3, 7.1 (A.26)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^m \sum_{k=1}^n \frac{\partial (\phi S_{jk})}{\partial x_i} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_j \otimes \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k) \quad (\text{A.27})$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{j=1}^m \sum_{k=1}^n \left(\phi \frac{\partial S_{jk}}{\partial x_i} + S_{jk} \frac{\partial \phi}{\partial x_i} \right) (\hat{\mathbf{e}}_i \cdot \hat{\mathbf{e}}_j) \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \quad \text{Using 7.5 (A.28)}$$

$$= \sum_{i=1}^m \sum_{k=1}^n \phi \frac{\partial S_{ik}}{\partial x_i} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k + S_{ik} \frac{\partial \phi}{\partial x_i} \hat{\mathbf{e}}_k \quad \text{Using 6.1 (A.29)}$$

$$= \phi \nabla \cdot \mathbf{S} + \nabla \phi \cdot \mathbf{S} \quad \text{Using 8.27, 8.5, 7.15 (A.30)}$$

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